the Pāli *nibbuta* corresponds to the Sanskrit *nirvṛta*, it would also be easy to see why the true brāhmaṇa now is, literally, 'uncovered': he has reached *tad ekam* which is no longer 'covered' by darkness, etc., as suggested in RV 10.129.3. The word *nibbuta*, then, should not be etymologically related to *nirvāṇa*, which literally can only be 'no wind'. The word *nirvāṇa*, which is not Vedic, probably has its background in the *avātam*, the windless, said of the One that breathed, in RV 10.129.2. The phrase *anupādāya nibbuto* thus means that one is free, for one no longer takes up anything (the burden of the skandhas) as a cover that confines.

35 (= 417). What is a human yoga as opposed to a divine yoga? Generally, in our text, it means an activity, mostly deliberate, that produces a result, positive or negative. See the index locorum in the PTS edition. Here, it seems to imply lack of normal, mental activity.

39 (= 421). Again, an allusion to meditation. Mind does not hang onto anything.

41 (= 423). The final verse of the Brāhmaṇavagga may be seen as a Buddhist counterpart to the final verse of RV 10.129, which spoke of the Surveyor in highest heaven who knows, or knows not. The true brāhmaṇa also sees and knows. The Buddha is the great *Seer*.

With these observations I have tried to show that several canonical Buddhist words and ideas can only be properly understood when we keep certain Vedic passages in mind. Today, when Buddhology is often treated as a discipline in its own right, it is good to be aware that it must never be separated from the broader Indian context in which it actually developed and to which it properly belongs. This simple truth is not seldom overlooked, even by the bauddhas themselves.

For further arguments in support of the thesis here propounded, please refer to my paper referred to above in *Asian Philosophy*.

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BUDDHISM IN THE TANG PERIOD*

Helwig Schmidt-Glintzer

INTRODUCTION

There are two quite contradictory opinions on the Buddhism of the Tang period: according to one, the Tang period was the heyday of Buddhism in China[1], while the other view denies this, at least as regards the relation of church and state[2]. In actual fact, from the point of view of Buddhism, the Tang was a difficult period, but from the point of view of Chinese and Japanese historiographers of the Buddhist schools. it was a period of variety in which much flourished: the practice of translation, architecture and economic prosperity and many other fields, and also a period of intellectual new beginnings originated or stimulated by Buddhism. And just as this period is variously represented from the point of view of Buddhists, so too the various specialists who belong broadly to the (divided) Confucian tradition differ among themselves. In this tradition, many innovations of Neo-Confucianism are regarded as derived from Buddhism or as a reaction against it, or are at least seen as closely related to the Buddhism of the Tang period, while others lay stress on the independent nature of the Neo-Confucian developments. I can only refer here to the various paradigms underlying these viewpoints, and which belong to the classical

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* Translated by Maurice Walshe from 'Der Buddhismus der Tang-Zeit, *Minima Sinica* 2, Bonn 1993, pp.98–116, and published with the permission of the original Editor, Prof. Dr Wolfgang Kubin.

1 This view is taken in most accounts of Chinese history or cultural history, but also in works such as that of Charles Hartman, *Han Yü and the T'ang Search for Unity*, Princeton N.J. 1986, who makes it the basic assumption of his account when he writes (p.5): 'T'ang was in all essentials a Buddhist state'.

2 See Stanley Weinstein, 'Imperial Patronage in the Formation of T'ang Buddhism; in *Perspectives on the T'ang*, ed. Arthur F. Wright, Denis Twitchett, New Haven and London 1973, pp.265–306 (here p.265).

inventory of Chinese historiography and the general Chinese self-view, without going into details or historical explanations[3].

For those who speak of the difficult situation of Buddhism in this period, the decisive factor is that it was also a period of the greatest persecutions of this teaching, which had reached China hundreds of years previously by sea as well as overland along the Silk Road, and had become acclimatised there. But there were persecutions before, and it may be suspected that the later complaints about the persecutions of the Huichang period (841-6) are also a lament for the final loss of an élite culture, the aristocratic culture of the Chinese Middle Ages, which also manifested itself in Buddhism and Buddhist culture. Ambivalence towards one's own position in the subsequent literary stratum demanded, as it were, that one should regret the loss of all privileges of birth — which of course implied regretting the preconditions of one's own bureaucratic existence. So much for the more general themes of the later idealisations of the Tang period.

In the course of the Tang dynasty Buddhism changed in a quite fundamental way, and any account of the Buddhism of this period has to take this dynamism into account. The changes themselves were partly the result of altered power relations at court, and partly due to a changing attitude towards religious questions. But Buddhism itself had brought about various changes.

THE STARTING POINT. POSITION OF MONASTICISM AT THE BEGINNING OF THE TANG PERIOD

A Buddhist monk in China at the beginning of the Tang period, living in the capital Chang'an, celibate even if wicked tongues

3 Some thoughts on this can be found in my article 'Ausdehnung der Weit und innerer Verfall' [Extensions of the World and Internal Decline] in *China und die Fremden. 3000 Auseinandersetzung in Krieg und Frieden*, ed. Wolfgang Bauer, Munich 1980, pp.77–113, and in 'Vielfalt und Einheit — Zur integrationistischen Tendenz in der Kultur Chinas' [Multiplicity and Unity — on the Integrational Tendency in Chinese Culture] in *Kultur — Begriff und Wort in China und Japan*, ed. Sigrid Paul, Berlin 1984, pp.123–41.

spoke of misconduct in the monasteries, was not too badly off. He had never known the alms-bowl. There had been mendicant monks in other countries, but this custom had never established itself in China, which could be seen from the fact that anyone begging usually got a nickname like 'Leavings'[4].

At the beginning of the dynasty things in general had not been too bad. The ruler of the previous Sui dynasty, Yang Jian, himself the product of the cloister, had in the twenty-four years of his reign, and with an eye on the influence of the clergy, allowed the ordination of 230,000 monks and nuns, and had 3,792 monasteries built and innumerable Buddhist scriptures copied and images erected[5]. But above all large sections of the population, particularly the aristocracy, were keen followers of Buddhism, and remained so. And, even though arguments against Buddhism were constantly raised, nobody had taken this very seriously.

It was clear that the new rulers of the Li family would have to continue to respect the position of the Buddhists. The only trouble was that the Taoists were beginning to gain on the Buddhists. The fact that state control, in the form of registration of monks and other restrictions, was increasing would have been acceptable if only the Taoists had been equally affected by it. That the founder of the dynasty Li Yuan (566-635), later known by the posthumous title of Tang Gaozu (r.618-26), had declared for Taoism before seizing power, was to begin with also nothing special: Liang Wudi (r.502-49) had gained power with the aid of Taoist propagandists, and yet had he not, as Emperor, oppressed and even persecuted the Taoists, and persistently supported the

4 On this see Richard B. Mather, 'The Bonze's Begging Bowl: Eating Practices in Buddhist Monasteries in Medieval India and China', in *Journal of the American Oriental Society* 101:4 (1981), pp.417–24.

5 Takakusu et al, (eds), *Taishō shinshū daizōkyō* 52.509b (*Bianzheng lun*); on the relation between Buddhism and the state in the Sui period, see Arthur F. Wright, 'The Formation of Sui Ideology, 581–604', in John K. Fairbanks, ed., *Chinese Thought and Institutions*, Chicago/London 1957, pp.71–104; *id.*, *The Sui Dynasty*, New York 1978.

Buddhists?[6] But now the ear of the ruler was primarily turned towards the Taoists and their prophecies, which were indeed attached to conditions, such as the building of temples and other favours of a material nature to the Taoists. And certainly it was not easy to accept the fact that the imperial family had taken it into their heads to claim descent from Laozi[7]. The resulting conflict between Taoists and Buddhists, however, occurred chiefly at court and in the capital, so that we have to distinguish between the position of religion in the provinces and in the capital.

PIETY AND CRITICISM OF THE MOBILISATION OF THE MASSES

However much we may speak of the state and the monks, we must not overlook the fact that in Tang China Buddhism was at least as successful a doctrine as it was an institution. As a teaching it provided intellectual satisfaction, but above all, it devalued life in favour of an other-worldly ideal, and gave to those in this vale of tears who had in any way suffered disappointment a hope of a better rebirth, which could be gained by the accumulation of merit. There were various ways to gain this accumulation: good deeds of all kinds, gifts to monasteries and charity, giving up fishing, and of course, above all else, obeying the rules. At the same time the idea arose that it was no-one's own merits that were decisive for liberation from the wheel of rebirths, but the grace of a holy being — an idea that found its proper shape in the Bodhisattva ideal[8]. But even so, the piling-up of merit remained an essential element of piety. This concept

6 On the relation between clergy and rulers in Liu-chao China, see Anna Seidel, 'Imperial Treasures and Taoist Sacraments: Taoist Roots in the Apocrypha', in *Mélanges Chinois et Bouddhiques* XXI (1983), pp.291–371, esp. 348ff. — On Liang Wudi's relation to Buddhism see also Fang Litian in *Shijie zongjiao yanjiu* 6 (1981, fasc.4), pp.16–33.

7 On the tradition of the deification of Laozi and the descent of the Tang ruling house from him, see Anna K. Seidel, *La Divinisation de Lao Tseu dans le Taoïsme des Han*, Paris 1969.

8 On this see the collective volume of Leslie S. Kawamura (ed.), *The Bodhisattva Doctrine in Buddhism*, Waterloo, Ont. 1981.

later took shape in the tendency of the so-called Neo-Confucianism to keep a daily register of good deeds and failings[9]. A favourite way of increasing one's merit was to print a text in as many copies as possible, or to recite it or have it recited; this preference was not without its influence on the development of printing in China.

Other voices were also heard from those who took exception to the charismatic features of the Buddhist doctrine and who, turning away from the cult, adopted a more down-to-earth position. Among these were many Confucians, in particular Han Yu (768-824), but also Buddhist supporters themselves[10]. This similarity of basic attitude between those who were later to be venerated as re-awakeners of Confucianism and fathers of Neo-Confucianism, and prominent representatives of meditative Buddhism goes to show that the separate elements of the intellectual world of the Tang period are only parts of a close-knit and often intertwined whole, so that even Buddhism cannot be clearly distinguished as a separate and isolated element of that period.

To critics like Han Yu, the whole order of society seemed imperilled. He was not concerned about piety itself, but by the possibility of a shift in power through mass movements, such as the veneration of a bone of the Buddha, against which he campaigned. However, in spite of the persecutions of institutional Buddhism, the factor of mass enthusiasm remained constant in Chinese politics in the following centuries[11].

9 On this see Chün-fang Yü, *The Renewal of Buddhism in China: Chu-hung and the Late Ming Synthesis*, New York 1981.

10 The famous appeal to the throne by Han Yu against the worship of the Buddha's finger-bone in the capital, and the following events, are reported by the Japanese monk Ennin in the account of his travels; he gives a vivid account of religions in China. See also Edwin O. Reischauer (tr.), *Ennin's Diary*, The Record of a Pilgrimage to China in Search of the Law, New York 1955, and *Ennin's Travels in T'ang China* (*ibid.*).

11 Attempts at investigating religious mass movements have been made in various ways, but there is still no systematic and methodically reflective study.

1. The State and the Administration of Monasticism

FU YI'S ATTACK, CA 620 CE

In 621 the Grand Astrologer (*taishiling*) Fu Yi (555-639) presented for the first time a submission to the throne declaring in eleven points that Buddhism ought to be abolished. There had been similar attacks previously, mainly from people who appealed to Confucius but were really afraid that their petty official posts and their authority might be limited through clerical privileges. Even though what Fu Yi, who was himself a Taoist priest and had already appeared as a persecutor of Buddhists under the previous North Zhou dynasty, was now instigating was very transparent, there remained grounds for anxiety because of the strong sympathy of the court for Taoism. The ruler had put Fu Yi's arguments — well known from previous Taoist-Buddhist debates and somewhat hackneyed — to a commission of Buddhist monks, who compiled several refutations, of which Falin's *Poxie lun* ('Rejection of Errors') is the most important[12].

At first Fu Yi even gained some successes, as when in 621 Li Yuan, in the course of his campaign of pacification in Eastern China, decreed that in the prefectures where disturbances had taken place only a single Buddhist monastery with a maximum of

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New works on this subject are by Daniel Overmyer and Masaaki Chikusa. One sign of the invasion of politics by populist elements is the prophecy-books of the 10th century, such as the *Tuibeitu*. With this populist element, a completely new factor appeared on the Chinese imperial scene. This led to a new conflict between proclaimers of salvation, which was finally settled in a particular way by the development of a theory of the Three Teachings. This began in the Tang period, but was only fully developed in subsequent centuries. For the Three Teachings theory in the Tang period, see Liu Ts'un-yan, 'The Syncretism of the Three Teachings in Sung-Yüan China', in Liu Ts'un-yan (ed.), *New Excursions from the Hall of Harmonious Wind*, Leiden 1984, pp.3–95.

12 Taishō (cf. n.5) 52, No.2109. On Fu Yi's arguments against Buddhism, see Arthur F. Wright, 'Fu I and the Rejection of Buddhism', in 'Chinese Reactions to Imported Ideas. A Symposium', in *Journal of the History of Ideas* 21.1 (1951), pp.31–74, esp. 33–47.

thirty monks was allowed. Fortunately, however, the ministers could not quite agree on the policy to be adopted towards the different religions. As late as 625 Li Yuan had described Taoism and Confucianism as the pillars of the state and Buddhism as merely a foreign doctrine, but public debates led him, only a year later, at least outwardly to treat both teachings, Taoism and Buddhism, on an equal footing. But in reality the Buddhists were to be more severely affected by the measures because, of the 120 Buddhist monasteries existing in the capital at the beginning of the seventh century, 117 were to be closed, while only eight of the ten Taoist temples suffered the same fate.

However, only a month after this decree, when Li Shimin, Li Yuan's second son, forced his father with some bloodshed to abdicate, he withdrew his father's anticlerical decrees. In the reign of Taizong (r.626-49), Buddhism was actually favoured at first and used as a legitimation of the ruler, while at the same time being subjected to a stricter system of state supervision. All the same, Li Shimin retained some reservations concerning this religion out of the Far West. It was only towards the end of his life that he became drawn to Buddhism, prompted by the reports of the famous traveller to India, Xuanzang (d. 664 CE), who had also become his spiritual mentor in his last years. This turn of events stimulated the production of other works about India and the role of Buddhism in the world, such as the Vinaya monk Daoxuan's *Shijia fangzhi*, which was based on Xuanzang's report.

THE PREFERENTIAL TREATMENT OF BUDDHISM UNDER EMPRESS WU

The ninth son of Li Shimin, Li Zhi, his successor on the throne and known as Emperor Gaozong (r. 649-83), was at first influenced by Xuanzang; but it was only in 674, under pressure from Empress Wu, that an edict was issued putting Taoists and Buddhists once more on an equal footing. This was one of the decisive steps in Empress Wu's policy of declaring Buddhism the

state religion[13]. For, on account of the repeated restrictions on them, the representatives of this religion were in fact not totally committed to the preservation of the Tang dynasty, and were the most likely to work for the legitimation of a new dynasty headed by a woman -- something which China had not previously experienced. But it was only after the Empress had eliminated all her rivals, and when numerous omens appeared on account of the need for legitimation, that, in the seventh month of the year 690, a group of ten Buddhist monks presented her with a copy of the 'Great Cloud Sūtra' (*Dayun jing*)[14], assuring her that she was the long-awaited Saviour-Buddha Maitreya and that the Mandate of Heaven had passed to her. And in fact we find in the thirty-seventh chapter of this sūtra, which was translated into Chinese as long ago as 417, that 700 years after the Buddha's entry into Nirvāṇa a princess would be born who would be recognised and highly revered by the whole world, and who would lead her kingdom into a paradisiacal state. Even after Empress Wu's deposition and the continuation of the Tang dynasty under Zhongzong (r. 705-10), this policy was not changed. It was only under Ruizong (r. 710-12) that a change was introduced. First, the equality of the Buddhists and Taoists was proclaimed, and then, in the reign of Xuanzong (r. 712-56), the privileges of the Buddhists, but also those of the Taoists, were reduced step by step. In particular, the construction of temples and the custom of well-to-do families of nominally placing parts of their estates at the disposal of temples in order to avoid taxation were limited or forbidden. In spite of the restrictive policy towards the Buddhists, one particular branch of Buddhism was encouraged by Xuanzong, the Esoteric School (*Mizong*), presumably because it fascinated the

13 On the relation between Buddhism and the state in the mid-Tang period, see in addition to S. Weinstein (cf. n.2), Tonami Mamoru in *Chūgoku chusei no shukyō to bunka, Jimbun kagaku kenyusho*, Kyoto 1982, pp.589–651.

14 On this action and the question of whether or not the sūtra was falsified, see full discussion in Antonino Forte, *Political Propaganda and Ideology in China at the End of the Seventh Century*, Naples 1976.

ruler with its rituals. And then, when at the end of 755 the An Lushan revolt broke out, the court once again sought support from the Buddhists.

BALANCING THE STATE'S FINANCES WITH CERTIFICATES OF ORDINATION

Because the Tang government needed to raise money by any means in order to meet military expenses, in 755 permits for monks' ordination were sold for the first time[15]. This measure was very successful and, in 757, in the region of the capital Chang'an alone, more than 100,000 people applied for permits.

At least as important for the development of Buddhism in China as the issue of monks' certificates was the fact that the civil war that raged in and around the capitals of Luoyang and Chang'an between 755 and 763 led to the destruction of the centres of the most important schools, so that the monks were scattered, and the lines of doctrinal descent were frequently interrupted. Another factor was that the patronage of Buddhism by individual military governors, who had through the An Lushan rebellion become the real rulers of China, led to the replacement of the former élitist and anti-democratic doctrines of the main schools by other, democratic or popular teachings, which appealed more to the simple heart, such as the practice of meditation and the Pure Land teaching. Thus, after the An Lushan revolt, the Faxiang school disappeared altogether, and the Vinaya school sank into insignificance, at least for the duration of the Tang dynasty. On the other hand, the Huayen and Chan schools flourished, corresponding to a new form of Buddhist religiosity, marked by strongly syncretistic tendencies. This movement was symbolised in especially striking form by Zongmi (780-841), who was a representative of both traditions, Huayen and Chan[16].

15 There are indications that such ordination permits had already been sold under Zhongzong and Ruizong. See *Zizhi tongjian* 209, p.6623.

16 On Zongmi, see n.21.

THE PERSECUTIONS OF THE HUICHANG ERA

The first steps against the Buddhists were taken in 842. This was above all due to Li Deyu. Since the 20s he had been the leader of one of the court factions, and from the position of various offices he had for years been inciting religious persecution, not only against the Buddhists, but also against all kinds of popular cults that were heterodox in his eyes.

In the following years many steps were taken, not only against the Buddhists, but against foreign religions, especially Manichaeism, ranging from laicisations through the confiscation or limitation of monastery or monks' property to the physical destruction of entire groups of monks. The persecution intensified after 844, when Wuzong came under the influence of the Taoist Zhao Guizhen. All forms of popular piety directed towards the Buddhists were forbidden; the clear purpose of this was the aim of the Taoists to gain a monopoly of religion. The peak was reached in 845, when Wuzong issued two edicts in the third month. According to these, all monastic possessions, including slaves, were to pass into the hands of the state and, further, no person under forty was allowed to be or remain in the status of a monk or nun. Whereas in 842 Wuzong had merely confiscated or restricted the private property of monks and nuns, and had only unfrocked such clerics as did not conform to monastic rules, this time the policy was directed against monastic property as such, and against all clerics, without regard to the sincerity of their efforts.

In the eighth month of 845 Wuzong justified his policy of destroying Buddhism and boasted of his successes:

> 4,600 monasteries closed
> 260,500 monks and nuns disrobed
> 40,000 chapels and hermitages destroyed
> Thousands of millions of *qing* of fertile land, and
> 150,000 former slaves put on the tax register[17].

17 For these figures, see S. Weinstein, *Buddhism under the T'ang*, Cambridge 1987. Cf. n.2 on p.134 and 199, n.111.

But Wuzong was struck down by an early death — he was not quite thirty-two when he died —, and with his successor, Xuanzong (r. 846-59), who was a supporter of the Buddhists, the state's policy changed again. True, in supporting Buddhism the new ruler had to proceed carefully because of the hostility to Buddhism evinced by some sections of the bureaucracy.

The last Tang rulers were mostly quite favourably disposed towards Buddhism and supported it, or were even keen devotees of this teaching. But it was not possible to achieve a complete restoration since, during the nine years of revolt, and especially the devastation caused by Huang Chao's campaigns (874-83), libraries had been destroyed and traditions shattered. In fact, these popular uprisings contributed more to undermining Buddhism than Wuzong's persecutions. For whereas at the time of the Huichang persecution many prominent members of the clergy had escaped by fleeing to the mountains, the widespread movement of revolt reached into the remotest corners of the kingdom[18]. In this way intellectual traditions were so totally submerged that many things were no longer understood in the tenth century, and many traditions could only be revived with the aid of Korean teachers. This explains, too, how it was that of all the Buddhist schools Chan survived the persecutions best, because its followers rejected scriptures and textual study and were not attached to objects, but concentrated on religious experience. The other school that survived this period and has remained to this day the second most important school after Chan was the Pure Land School, which relied on the saving grace of Amitābha.

The relation of Buddhism to the state during the Tang period, whether we read it in the official historians or the Buddhist historians, or especially in Buddhist apologetic literature, was one of increasing control by the court or by a government body of all religious matters. The extent of this control, and the degree of support or opposition involved, depended on which faction happened to have the upper hand, whether it was under the

18 See Weinstein, *Buddhism under the T'ang, op. cit.*, pp.148 and 204, n.17.

influence of Taoist circles, or else on the manner in which each particular ruler sought to legitimate his or her position.

However, anyone who might suppose that such a consideration of the relation of Buddhism and politics in the Tang period exhausted the subject would be failing to realise what Buddhism had to offer in that age. This was a multiplicity of spiritual, religious and artistic productivity and a wealth of scholarship and learning, so that despite everything we are fully justified in speaking of the 'heyday of Buddhism'. The Buddhism of the Tang period was also of importance for China because it shared in the intellectual changes of the eighth and ninth centuries, taking part in the various crises and reorientations that led to the development of Neo-Confucianism.

2. The World-view of the Scholar-Bureaucrats, and the Syncretistic Tendencies of the Eighth and Ninth Centuries

The uprooting and disappointment of the intelligentsia after the An Lushan rebellion in the mid-eighth century, with all its troubles and changes, led to a generation of a new stamp which marked the intellectual culture of the later Tang period and which is generally associated with the *guwen* movement. This new generation, to which Han Yu, Li Ao, Liu Yuxi and others belonged, was conditioned by the political measures and the establishment of new institutions in the realm of bureaucracy, such as in the field of taxation, which were initiated under the rule of Dezong (780-805)[19].

Buddhism had played a considerable part in the reorientation of this generation, the Pure Land School as well as Chan, but especially the Tientai school, which had undergone a renewal through its ninth patriarch Zhanran (711-82) and which, especially through the *panjiao* theory, made it possible to regard the

19 For the intellectual changes resulting from the An Lushan revolt, see the still fundamental essay by Edwin G. Pulleybank, 'Neo-Confucianism and Neo-Legalism in T'ang Intellectual Life, 785–805', in *The Confucian Persuasion*, ed. Arthur F. Wright, Stanford 1960, pp.77–114.

Confucian teachings too as a particular expression of the true Buddhist teaching. This syncretism then reached its peak in the eleventh century in the Chan monk Qisong, who was a kind of Buddhist Neo-Confucian.

THE INTELLECTUAL TRANSFORMATION AND THE OVERCOMING OF 'SECTARIANISM' IN NEO-LEGALISM: ZONGMI (780-841) VERSUS HAN YU (768-824)

Two texts from the beginning of the century are clearly indicative of the intellectual transformations of that period: 'The Basis of Morality' (*Yuandao*), written by Han Yu in the summer of 805[20], and the 'Treatise on Man' (*Yuanren lun*), which Zongmi is supposed to have written as a reaction against it, as well as against Han Yu's 'Treatise on Human Nature' (*Yuanxing*)[21]. Among other things Zongmi says:

> Among present-day scholars every one clings to his own school, so that among them, just the same as among students of Buddhism, not one knows what is really true. And so they don't ask about the fundamentals of heaven and earth, people and things. Here, I intend to investigate all phenomena according to Buddhist and non-Buddhist teachings, in order to go on from the provisional teachings from fundamentals and

20 On this text, see Hartman, *op.cit.*, p.145ff.

21 A translation of this text, after the Taishō edition, vol.45, pp.707–10, is in Wm Th. De Bary, *The Buddhist Tradition in India, China and Japan*, New York 1969, pp.179–96. — Studies in a Western language on this text and on Zongmi's syncretism in general principally in Yün-hua Jan, e.g. 'Tsung-mi. His Analysis of Ch'an Buddhism', in *T'oung Pao* 58 (1972), pp.1–54; 'A Buddhist Critique to the Classical Chinese Tradition', in *Journal of Chinese Philosophy* 7 (1980), pp.301–18; in Japan especially Shigeo Kamata has worked and published on Zongmi in recent years. — As regards the close relationship between late Tang Buddhism and the development of Neo-Confucianism, especially in connection with the later *xiangyue* cult, we should note texts such as Zongmi's 'Collection of Wine-Sacrifice Texts for Priests and Laity' (see Yün-hua Jan in *Huagang foxue xuebao* 4 (1980), pp.132–66).

roots[22].

In his treatise, 'Basis of Morality', Han Yu identifies Buddhism and Taoism with the dissolution of all order and with escapism, contrasting this 'barbarism', as he calls it, with the teachings of the wise kings of old. This standpoint is not unconnected with the fact that the so-called Outer Court (*wai-ting*) had lost its power to the so-called Inner Court (*nei-ting*), the circle of counsellors consisting of eunuchs and clerics surrounding the ruler. Han Yu, whose position was later in essence shared by the scholar-bureaucrats, opposed this preponderance of power enjoyed by the Inner Court. Since any kind of compromise between these quite different teachings seemed impossible, and an enlightened syncretism could only obtain among the minority of the élite, the basic question for the constitution and political practice was: what was to be considered really Chinese and what, on the other hand, was to be regarded as really foreign and barbarian? Han Yu's attack on Buddhism as well as Taoism and the defence of these different teachings in a syncretic form can be understood as the clash between the Inner and Outer Courts at the turn of the eighth to the ninth century — a conflict which, as we have said, had not been abolished by the persecution of Buddhism in the Huichang period. The respect in which Han Yu was held from the eleventh century on is just as much an expression of the continuance of this conflict as is the reference by Buddhist historians of the Song period to Liu Zonguan's pro-Buddhist attitude.

I cannot here go fully into the question of Han Yu and the Neo-Confucianism of this time, especially what has been termed Neo-Legalism. I will just mention one other question which will certainly interest many of you. In fact some of you may have expected that I would only discuss this subject in my paper: the question of what sort of Buddhism survived in China in spite of everything, but especially, why it was just the Meditation School, Chan or Japanese Zen Buddhism, which reached its real peak and

22 See De Bary, *op cit.*, p.181.

its mass effect only in the late Tang period and the following centuries in China, and then spread to Japan and, finally, the whole world. Since I cannot here go into all the different branches of Buddhism, I will leave aside all reference to the survival of Buddhist rituals and popular piety, such as you find massively covered in the literature, and turn exclusively to the question of the origin and development of Chan Buddhism.

THE FORMATION OF THE CHAN SCHOOL, OR WHY IS THE TANG PERIOD CONSIDERED THE HEYDAY OF BUDDHISM?

The history of Chan Buddhism goes back to before the Tang period. Most older accounts are now dated in many ways, especially as regards the Tang period and the relation of the so-called Northern and Southern Schools[23]. The essential point is no doubt that the Chan movement was basically an iconoclastic teaching which could dispense with texts and doctrines, images and all externals. True, the turning to that which was regarded as the essential soon received a philosophical justification, but the practice of Chan, the intentionally unlearned instruction by teacher to pupil, the transcendence of all one-sidedness and party commitment, the expectation of insight without expecting it or doing anything about it — all these elements have influenced

23 The best-known treatment is probably that of Heinrich Dumoulin, *Zen, Geschichte und Gestalt*, Bern 1959 [Engl. trans. by P. Peachey, *The History of Zen Buddhism*, London 1963]. Of older, still useful studies can be named the three volumes by Ui Hakuju, *Zenshū shi kenkyū*, Tokyo 1949. But above all, the works of Yanagida Seizan, including his standard work on early Chan historiography, *Shoki Zenshū shisho no kenkyū*, Kyoto 1967, the series edited by him 'Zen no goroku', and the articles, influenced by him, in English, have greatly advanced our knowledge of the history of Chan Buddhism. Of these, mention should be made of Philip B. Yampolsky, *The Platform Sutra of the Sixth Patriarch*, New York 1967; John R. McRae, *The Northern School and the Formation of Early Ch'an Buddhism*, Honolulu 1986. Other works on Chinese Buddhism were not unaffected by these intense researches, so that in the last twenty years our knowledge of the history of Buddhism in the Tang period has gained a new quality.

wide circles of the intelligentsia from the Tang period to the present day, and have not been without influence on their creations, as we can easily see in calligraphy and painting, but also in literary works. And so the poetic theory of Yan Yu, from the end of the eleventh century, which conditioned the form of subsequent literary criticism, is itself essentially conditioned by Chan Buddhism. It is from this tradition that we find judgements that we should consider emancipatory, and which strike us as quite improbable in the mouth of a Confucian, for instance when Yixuan (d. 866) says of a monk of the so-called *Linji* School who was active in the west of the modern province of Hebei:

> Within and without, kill whatever gets in your way. If Buddha gets in your way, kill Buddha, if the Patriarchs get in your way, kill them, if the Arhats get in your way, kill them, if your father or mother gets in your way, kill them.

Nothing must influence one or upset one, and what seems like insensitivity leads, supposedly or actually, to enlightenment. But insight too has its snags, as, e.g., the verse in the sixteenth example in the *Wumenguan* points out:

> If understanding is there, then all form a unity; if understanding ceases, then they all fall apart into many separate individuals.
> If there is no understanding, then all form a unity; if understanding comes, then they all fall apart into many separate individuals[24].

Such sentences are often intentionally ambiguous, which is a mark of all aphorisms and so-called 'public cases' (*gongan*, Japanese *kōan*), and in the present case too quite different

24 Translated after Walter Liebenthal, *Wu-men Hui-k'ai Ch'an-tsung Wu-men kuan. Zutritt nur durch die Wand*, Heidelberg 1977, p.73.

translations of this verse are possible[25].

CONCLUSION

If we once again consider the role of Buddhism in the Tang period, it seems unclear why this period is described as a period of Buddhism. We could describe the Tang period with equal or greater justice as a period of Taoism. But from certain points of view the description of this period as Buddhist seems justified, namely because it was precisely Buddhism which acted as a catalyst for the social and intellectual development of this period. Not only was the old aristocracy strongly linked to Buddhism, it was also gaining ground precisely among the broad masses. In this way, the most varied groups and movements found their expression in the Buddhism of the Tang period, and so really first gave Buddhism its Chinese face. However, the later glorification of the Tang epoch as the heyday of Buddhism is just a cliché, just as the glorification in later times of Tang literature is a cliché, necessary for the self-pitying literary class for whom the ideal of the wise and perfect man had anyway become unattainable, and whose members, whether as officials or private persons, were discontented.

The Confucianisation of Buddhism, and the Buddhicisation of society can be seen in the fact that monks increasingly had themselves buried after death instead of being cremated according to the rule, while cremation gained in popularity among the laity.

Nonetheless, the wishful looking back to the Tang period is

25 On *kōans*, see Isshu Miura, Ruth Fuller Sasaki, *Zen Dust. The History of the Koan and Koan Study in Rinzai (Lin-chi) Zen*, New York 1966. On the so-called *yulu* generally transmitting such *kōans*, see Yanagida Seizan, 'The *Recorded Sayings* Texts of Chinese Ch'an Buddhism', in Whalen Lai, Lewis R. Lancaster (ed.) *Early Ch'an in China and Tibet*, Berkeley 1983, pp.185–205. — How varied the interpretation of what Chan Buddhism is can be seen both in the different interpretative traditions as well as in general discussions. Example: Hu Shih's and D.T. Suzuki's articles in *Philosophy East and West* 3, No.1 (April 1953), pp.3–46.

also the expression of the remembrance of a society with pluralistic tendencies, which found their peak in literature as well as in the development of Chan Buddhism. But this peak at the same time marked the end of this freedom, since the fundamentalism and rigorism which was inherent in Chan, and indeed in general culture, on account of the search for truth, was — again? — to become a decisive principle of all Chinese culture.

Prof. Dr Helwig Schmidt-Glintzer
(University of Göttingen,
Herzog August Bibliothek,
Wolfenbüttel)

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EKOTTARĀGAMA (XXVI)

Translated from the Chinese Version by
Thích Huyên-Vi and Bhikkhu Pāsādika
in collaboration with Sara Boin-Webb

Eleventh Fascicle
Part 20
(A Spiritual Friend)

3. [1] 'Thus have I heard. At one time the Buddha was staying in Śrāvastī, at Jeṭr's Grove, in Anāthapiṇḍada's Park. Then the Exalted One was expounding the Teaching, surrounded by an audience (*parṣad*) [consisting of quasi-] innumerable (*asaṃkhyeya*) [persons].Simultaneously Dharmaruci[2] was alone in his quiet room, reflecting

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[1] See T2, 597a22 ff.; Hayashi, p. 174 ff. Cf. Divy(V), pp. 152-7; Mvu(B), 194-6.

[2] For information on Dhammaruci based on the Apadāna, cf. DPPN I, p. 1148 f. In the remotest past Dhammaruci, then Megha by name, had become a monk under the Buddha Dīpaṅkara, but left the Order again and even committed matricide. Consequently he went to Avīci and thereafter was born as a fish. Once, even as an animal, he heard merchants in distress at sea recite the Buddha Gotama's name for protection. The fish remembered Dīpaṅkara's having prophesied the future Buddha, then died and was reborn in Sāvatthī. There once more he entered the Order of Gotama Buddha and, in due course, became an arahant.

The account in Mvu resembles that of the Apadāna, but interprets the expression *cirasya* (cf. below, n. 6) in a way differing from its meaning in Divy, viz. 'for a long time [to come]': The gigantic fish, on hearing the merchants in distress recite the Buddha's name, becomes so joyful and elated (*hṛṣṭo udagracitto*) that this karmically wholesome emotion results in the animal's rebirth as a human being; remembering / being mindful of the Buddha is beneficial to the world for a very long time to come (*sucirasya lokahita, ibid.* p. 196).

The Divy account opens with the story of the trade expedition of 500 merchants. On their way back a tempest puts their lives in great danger, and a giant *timitimiṃgila* is about to devour them. After invoking Śiva's, Varuṇa's and other deities' help in vain, they recite '*namo Buddhāya* '. Hearing this, the giant fish is struck with dismay and decides to refrain from devouring the merchants. The latter reach the coast of their homeland and proceed to Śrāvastī to pay homage to the Buddha. Having distributed all their riches, they are